

Nine Cases of Transitions and Consolidations

PHILIP MAUCERI

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COSTA RICA, 1948-1970: Consensus Politics

Chronology of Key Events

FEBRUARY 1948: In presidential elections, Dr. Rafael Angel Guardia (PRN) is narrowly defeated by Otilio Ulate (PUN). Claiming that fraud marred the election results, the PRN-controlled Congress voted 27 to 18 to overturn the results and to declare Calderón Guardia the winner.

MARCH 1948-APRIL 1948: Opposition candidates José Figueres Ferrer (PSD) and Otilio Ulate (PUN) form an alliance and an army to defeat Cal-

deron. With civil war conditions prevailing in San José, President Picado resigns and a second republic is declared by *Liberacionista* forces.

MAY 1948-NOVEMBER 1949: A *junta* is established with Figueres as president. Constituent Assembly elections result in Ulate's forces controlling the assembly. An invasion by PRN forces from Nicaragua is defeated. The new constitution abolishing the armed forces is adopted, and Ulate assumes the presidency.

JULY 1953-JANUARY 1955: Figueres and his newly formed PLN win the presidency with 65 percent of the vote. A reform program involving new taxes and wage increases is enacted. In early 1955 remnants of Calderón's forces invade Costa Rica with four hundred men and support from Somoza. The invasion fizzles after the United States and the OAS condemned it.

JULY 1958: Mario Echandi (PUN) is elected president with 46 percent of the vote. The PLN remains the largest party in the Legislative Assembly with twenty seats, though a Calderón-Ulate alliance gives control to the government.

JULY 1962-1966: Presidency of Francisco Orlich Bolmarich (PLN).

JULY 1966-1970: Presidency of José Joaquín Trejos (PUN).

JULY 1970: José Figueres Ferrer (PLN) is elected president for a second time with 55 percent of the vote.

Introduction

Costa Rica is distinguished by a long history of democracy after the 1948 Revolution. Only one previous breakdown of democracy occurred in Costa Rica in this century (in 1917) and in the country's entire history, only some forty years of the postindependence period were spent under dictatorships. After the 1948 breakdown, a transitional *junta* was established for one year to oversee the disbanding of the armed forces, the holding of elections, and the drawing up of a new constitution. Since 1949, ten peaceful transfers of presidential power have occurred.

"Revolution" of 1948

In the elections of February 1948, the leftist-populist Dr. Rafael Angel Calderón Guardia attempted to capture the presidency, which he had held during the period from 1940 to 1944. When election returns showed Otilio Ulate (PUN) a center-rightist candidate had won, Calderón and the then-President Teodoro Picado, also of the PRN, implored the Congress to nullify the elections. With the majority of seats on their side, the Calderón-Picado forces declared the elections void due to fraud and corruption, a charge that the autonomous electoral tribunal denied.

By early March, José Figueres Ferrer, a center-leftist who had also sought the presidency, joined in a political pact with Ulate's forces and formed an Army of National Liberation. Fighting between *Liberacionista* and government forces was sporadic but bloody. The government relied on a force of fifteen hundred communist *Vanguardia Popular* militiamen to complement the five-hundred-man Costa Rican army. During the fighting, reports of an invasion from Somoza's Nicaragua and of U.S. intervention were rampant; however, it appears that both sides deliberately avoided escalating the conflict to a regional level by not requesting outside assistance.

At the end of April, President Picado resigned and a *junta* was declared with Figueres as president. Though the surrender agreement negotiated through the U.S. ambassador and the Church called for the protection of the lives and property of the Calderón-Picado forces, the new *junta* moved swiftly to dismiss from office, imprisonment, or exile most of the key previous leaders.

The Junta and Transition

During the period of *junta* rule (from May 1948 to November 1949), the democratic norms that had governed Costa Rica over the previous half-century reasserted themselves. The *junta's* eleven members, consisting of Figueres, Ulate, and their supporters, scheduled Constituent Assembly elections for December. The assembly was charged with the task of writing a new constitution. Election results gave Ulate's PRN a landslide: thirty-three of the forty-one contested seats. Calderón's PRN was not allowed to participate in the elections.

Following the elections, the *junta* announced the dissolution of the armed forces. The decision was in keeping with the *junta's* stated goal of reducing the powers of the executive, which were seen as having been excessively enlarged during the Calderón and Picado administrations. Moreover, there was a lingering resentment at the military for having openly taken the side of Calderón-Picado. Surprisingly, there were few protests of the decision from any sector of society. The fact that Costa Rica's army traditionally had been minuscule, and that the nation had just suffered a rare eruption of violence that many attributed to a military-minded executive, played an important part in this reaction. Nevertheless, shortly after the announcement, forces loyal to Calderón crossed the border with Nicaraguan troops in an apparent attempt to seize power. It was only after vigorous protests from the UN, the OAS and the United States that the troops withdrew peacefully.

Not all the provisions of the new constitution met with the approval of the *junta*, though they were respected. The *junta* had been urging a greater emphasis on socioeconomic rights, a position the assembly rejected. Article 12 of the new constitution did institutionalize the *junta's* prohibition of a military. In its place, a civil guard was established to exercise police functions and border patrol. In keeping with the *junta's* concern for reducing executive authority, the assembly curtailed the president's power to issue decrees and to veto legislation. In addition, the bureaucracy was given greater autonomy from the executive.

Both the Supreme Electoral Tribunal and the judiciary were given new independent powers.

Aside from its legacy of democracy, Costa Rica's redemocratization also benefited from the consensus and deference shown by leading politicians during the transition. Thus, Figueres, a Social Democrat, continued as president of the *junta* even after Ulate's forces had swept the assembly elections. Considering that Ulate had been rightfully elected president in the 1948 elections, his deference to Figueres was an extraordinary example of the willingness to compromise between the two leaders.

Consolidation

The day after the new constitution was inaugurated in November 1949, Otilio Ulate assumed the presidency as the legitimately elected head of state. Ulate's term in office (from 1949 to 1953) witnessed economic prosperity and two armed revolts by Calderonistas. The latter were then permitted to participate fully in the democratic system. More importantly, the political alliance forged between Figueres and Ulate during the revolution collapsed. In 1951 Figueres formed a new party (PLN) and attacked Ulate's increasingly conservative economic policies. In the 1953 elections, Figueres won with the largest electoral margin in Costa Rican history. During his administration (from 1953 to 1958), a series of major socioeconomic reforms was enacted. Significantly, he renegotiated the share of profits to be handed over to the government by the United Fruit Company (from 15 to 35 percent), while the latter was engaged in bitter disputes with the Guatemalan government over a similar issue. He also doubled the income tax on top income brackets and increased the minimum wage in a drive toward his stated goal of social equity.

The political rancor caused by these moves was, however, soon overshadowed. In January 1955 a force of four hundred men, under the command of ex-President Picado's son, invaded Costa Rica from Nicaragua. The invasion was openly aided and supported by Anastasio Somoza as well as by the Dominican Republic's Rafael Trujillo and Pérez Jiménez of Venezuela, all of whom were angered by Figueres' outspoken denunciations of them and by his domestic reform program. Rather than a quick victory, the invasion triggered an outpouring of support for Figueres, who portrayed it as a "Somocista plot" against Costa Rican democracy. Costa Rica appealed for assistance to the OAS, which sent an investigating committee. In addition, the United States made P-51 fighter jets available. Open U.S. support for Figueres was based on an assessment of him as a moderate reformer acting as a bulwark against communist-influenced Calderonistas. This support and widespread condemnation from other Latin American nations deterred an escalation by Nicaragua, and the attack soon fizzled.

In the decade following Figueres' administration, alternating party control of the executive proved to be the norm. While the PLN controlled the executive and legislative branches during Figueres' rule, a rapprochement occurred be-

tween the bitter enemies of 1948—Ulate's PUN and Calderón's PRN (now the PR). In the 1958 elections, both parties joined forces to support the winning conservative, Mario Echandi. Calderón's party after 1955 purged itself of its leftist factions and moved to adopt a centrist position. Though the PUN-PR alliance split in the 1962 elections, when both Ulate and Calderón sought the presidency for themselves, it reemerged victorious in 1966. The PRN meanwhile succeeded in 1962 and again in 1970, when Figueres recaptured the presidency.

The failure of any one party to dominate the electoral game contributed to the competitive nature of politics. Yet, despite this competitiveness, Costa Rican politics during this period was also governed by consensus on a wide range of issues. The policy of not maintaining an army was supported by all parties. President Echandi went so far as to rename the civil guard barracks "police stations" and to abolish remnants of the Defense Ministry.

Several factors contributed to the narrow policy range of Costa Rican politics during the period of consolidation. A crucial aspect was the lack of extreme parties and organizations on either the left or right. The three main parties were generally centrist, with labor unions and business associations closely tied to individual parties. Political moderation had evolved over the course of Costa Rican history and extremes were assimilated (for example, the PRN) or else defeated, as was the communist *Vanguardia Popular* in 1948. But political moderation was also the result of a socioeconomic climate that lacked extremes of wealth and privilege. Ethnically, the nation is relatively homogeneous, without major racial cleavages. Moreover, large latifundia have never dominated Costa Rican rural society, and income levels are not sharply unequal. A sizable middle class exists.

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COLOMBIA, 1956-1974: The National Front

Chronology of Key Events

JULY 1956: The Declaration of Benidorm is issued by Liberal leader Alberto Lleras Camargo and Conservative Laureano Gómez, acknowledging joint responsibility for the breakdown of democracy.

MARCH 1957-MAY 1957: The Civic Front Manifesto is issued by the two parties opposing a Rojas candidacy and vowing to present a single candidate. Rojas is deposed and a military *junta* installed.

JULY 1957-MARCH 1958: The Pact of Sirges is signed, pledging both major parties to bipartisan cooperation over a twelve-year period. In a national plebiscite, the National Front agreements are overwhelmingly ratified. In congressional elections, Liberals outpace Conservatives 58 to 42 percent, though seats are divided equally.

MAY 1958-OCTOBER 1958: In presidential elections, Liberal Alberto Lleras Camargo is elected with 85 percent of the vote. The constitution is amended to include the National Front agreements, now extended to sixteen years. General Rojas is tried and convicted on charges of corruption.

MAY 1962: Guillermo León Valencia (a Conservative) is elected president, with 62 percent of the vote.

MAY 1966: Carlos Lleras Restrepo (a Liberal) is elected president, with 71 percent of the vote.

MAY 1970: Misael Pastrana (a Conservative) is elected president in a close four-way race. He is declared the winner over Rojas in a ruling by the Supreme Electoral Court. Following the elections a state of siege is declared, because rioting and protests occur in reaction to the election.

MAY 1974: Alfonso López Michelson (a Liberal) is elected president, while Rojas's ANAPO vote share declines to 10 percent.

Introduction

The transition following the collapse of the Rojas Pinilla dictatorship, which ruled from 1953 to 1957, was characterized by a deliberate attempt to structure political institutions and competition in a way that would avoid the breakdown conditions of 1948-53. For sixteen years, Colombia would be governed by political accords forged during the transition by the two major parties, the

Liberals and the Conservatives. Those accords guaranteed a monopoly on holding elective office for the two parties during that period, a prescription for constructing democracy that within the last decade has been increasingly questioned.

Authoritarian Breakdown and Party Pacts

During his rule, General Gustavo Rojas Pinilla attempted to create a popular movement—the Third Force—to support his increasingly personalistic regime and to challenge the dominance of the traditional Colombian parties. His efforts, however, met with resistance not only from the parties but from the military itself. The military as an institution was reluctant to commit itself to a permanent political role that would exclude the parties. To a large extent, this unwillingness resulted from the military's history since independence of obedience to party dominance of the political system. Rojas's attempts to challenge traditional party rule also had the effect of uniting the dominant parties against this common threat. The growing realization that this threat was the result of the vicious divisions between the parties contributed to the forging of political pacts between them between 1956 and 1958. As early as 1954 former President López urged that Liberals and Conservatives join together to reform political institutions.

The first formal agreement emerged in July 1956, when Liberal leader Alberto Lleras and Conservative Laureano Gómez signed the Declaration of Benidorm, pledging to cooperate in a return to democracy. In addition, they acknowledged that both parties had contributed to the *violencia* and shared responsibility for the breakdown of democracy. After Rojas declared that he would be a candidate in the scheduled 1958 elections, both parties issued the Civic Front Manifesto in March 1957 opposing his election and vowing to present a single candidate.

Faced with strong pressure from newly cooperative party leaders and the prospect of extended authoritarian rule under a corrupt and personalist leader, the military deposed Rojas in May. A transitional *junta* led by General Gabriel Paris was installed and declared its readiness to cooperate with party leaders, now joined under the rubric of the National Front. Within two months of Rojas's fall, Lleras and Gómez had signed their most important agreement yet, the Pact of Sitges. It called for bipartisan cooperation over a twelve-year period, with alternating party control of the presidency and equal representation in the Congress and bureaucracy. A commission was to be appointed to ensure that the agreements were incorporated into the constitution, and a plebiscite seeking public approval was to be held. Although it was agreed that a Conservative would be the first president, choosing a Conservative proved to be difficult.

The first in a series of factional disputes arose when Gómez objected to the choice of Guillermo León Valencia as a candidate because the latter belonged to the faction led by Mariano Ospina Pérez, which had given early support to

General Rojas. The dispute was resolved through the Pact of San Carlos, which let the Congress settle the selection process.

Transition and Elections

With the fall of Rojas, the political initiative once again returned to the political parties. The National Front pacts were overwhelmingly approved in a December plebiscite. In March 1958 congressional elections were held. Though Liberals won 58 percent to the Conservatives' 42 percent, seats were divided equally. Among Conservatives, the Gómez faction outdistanced Ospinistas, thereby vetoing the choice of Valencia as president. After extensive negotiations it was agreed that the first president would be a Liberal and that the National Front accords would be extended to sixteen years, so as to give both parties an equal number of presidential terms.

One of the first acts of the new Congress was to ratify the accords as constitutional amendments. In addition to the power-sharing arrangements, key changes included stipulations prohibiting parties other than the Liberals and Conservatives from seeking office for sixteen years, legalizing the period of military rule, and requiring a two-thirds majority for the passage of legislation. Moreover, Catholicism was acknowledged as the national religion, ending a dispute over the Church's role in society that had contributed to the breakdown of democracy. It should be noted that the Church itself had significantly changed, attempting to distance itself from politics toward the end of the Rojas regime. In 1958 a new archbishop was appointed, Luis Concha Córdoba, who was known as a political moderate. Two months after the congressional elections, the Liberal leader Alberto Lleras Camargo was formally elected president of the republic.

The New Rules of the Game

By institutionalizing the National Front accords, the Liberal and Conservative leaders argued, excessive partisan strife would end and a democratic consensus could take hold. Yet factionalization of the party system was an important feature of this phase of consolidation, beginning during the Lleras administration (from 1958 to 1962). The prohibition against third-party candidates ensured that factional groups remained within the two parties rather than forming their own parties and losing access to political power.

Conservatives divided into three factions (led by Alzatistas, Ospinistas, and Laureanistas), while the Liberals split into two, an official wing and a wing led by López Michelson (the MRI). With the exception of the MRI, all the factions supported the National Front arrangements. As a result of these divisions, coalition-building became essential, especially in light of the two-thirds majority required for passing legislation. At first Lleras relied on his alliance with Gómez. However, after the 1960 congressional elections gave a majority to the

newly formed alliance between the Alza and Ospina forces, Lleras forged a coalition with these latter Conservatives.

Despite the provisions against third-party candidates, other parties were permitted to run candidates on Liberal or Conservative lines. This loose interpretation was allowed to a large extent because it afforded a degree of control over the other parties, primarily the Communists, the Christian Democrats, and the Rojista ANAPO. When Rojas returned from exile in October 1958 he was tried and convicted on charges of corruption, deprived of his political rights (later restored), and deprived of his military title and pension. Because the period of military rule had been legalized by the constitution, these moves appeared directed against Rojas personally and specifically at the political threat he might pose to the National Front through his new party. Nevertheless, the "tolerant" interpretation of the accords can be seen in the fact that both Rojas Pinilla and López Michelson were permitted to seek the presidency in the 1962 elections, even though the accords stipulated that a Conservative was to be the next president. As it turned out, León Valencia, an Alza-Ospina Conservative, won by a wide margin.

Throughout the National Front period, a surprising degree of policy continuity developed. A new emphasis on apolitical "technical solutions" to economic problems was initiated with the creation of the Planning Commission during the Lleras administration. Economic stability and diversification rather than distribution were the stated goals of all the National Front administrations, and no major agrarian or labor reforms were instituted. Overall, the economy achieved a slow growth rate with modest inflation.

An important element in both increasing technical expertise and providing external credits was the Alliance for Progress. The impetus of most foreign assistance was the need for developed and autonomous public sector agencies to engage in economic "planning." Viewed as a democracy and as a nation with a pro-U.S. policy, Colombia soon found itself one of the largest recipients of the U.S. aid program. Throughout the 1960s it received an average of \$200 million a year.

The first serious threat posed to the National Front was by the ANAPO. After the 1966 congressional elections gained that party a surprising number of seats under the Conservative banner, it came increasingly to be viewed as the opposition to the National Front. In the presidential elections later in the year, ANAPO gained nearly a third of the votes, even though the official Liberal candidate Carlos Lleras Restrepo won most of the remaining votes. However, in a four-way race in the 1970 elections, Rojas, running as a Conservative, gained 39 percent of the vote, and he claimed that only fraud prevented him from capturing the presidency, which went to Conservative Misael Pastrana. ANAPO's support was largely based on the urban poor, on whom Rojas concentrated most of his populist appeals.

With the Pastrana presidency (from 1970 to 1974), the National Front officially came to an end. The rapid escalation of political violence during the 1970s and 1980s has been increasingly associated with the frustration several

groups have felt with being excluded from active participation in political life during the National Front. The M19 guerrilla group, for example, was formed after the 1970 elections by Rojas supporters claiming that the elections were fraudulent. This frustration became all the more acute in light of the fact that the norms and rules of the accords continued in operation long after their official termination in 1974. If the consensus and limited competition of the National Front smoothed the way for the transition from military dictatorship, the inability of the system to compromise with new political groups and demands may have significantly limited the scope and ultimately the stability of democracy in Colombia.

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VENEZUELA, 1957–1973: Democracy and Party Pacts

Chronology of Key Events

DECEMBER 1957–JANUARY 1958: A meeting in New York among Venezuela's three major party leaders leads to agreement on cooperating for a transition to democracy. This is followed by the publication of a "Declaration Concerning the National Political Situation" in which business leaders urge an end to the dictatorship. In late January the regime of General Pérez Jiménez is overthrown and a transitional *junta* is installed.

JULY 1958–OCTOBER 1958: Two coup attempts by forces loyal to the former dictator are thwarted. The Pact of Punto Fijo, in which the parties vow to cooperate during the consolidation period, is signed.

DECEMBER 1958–NOVEMBER 1960: Rómulo Betancourt of Acción Democrática receives 49.2 percent of the vote in the presidential elections and leads a coalition government of AD, COPEI, and URD. An agrarian reform law is

enacted. Splits in AD over the Cuban issue lead to urban rioting and eventually to a domestic insurgency.

DECEMBER 1963: Raúl Leóni (AD) is elected president with 32.8 percent of the vote; he governs with COPEI cooperation.

DECEMBER 1968: Rafael Caldera (COPEI) is elected President, and power is transferred peacefully for the first time. The insurgent groups are largely defeated and given the option of entering the electoral system, which most accept.

MAY–DECEMBER 1973: The presidential candidacy of former dictator Pérez Jiménez is barred by constitutional amendment. Carlos Andrés Pérez is elected president with 48.6 percent of the vote.

Introduction

Venezuela's stable democratic regime rests on a strong multiparty system that promotes the sharing of democratic norms and regulates conflict in society. Not only were the transition and consolidation phases characterized by a political pact among the major parties, but the parties have remained key players through their access to political and economic resources. The military has effectively abstained from politics, while until recently oil revenues have provided the resources to meet the demands of key social actors. Venezuela has since 1958 maintained its democracy through six peaceful transfers of presidential power.

Authoritarian Breakdown and Party Pact

The leader of the *junta* that seized power in 1948 was General Marcos Pérez Jiménez. His rule was arbitrary, corrupt, and increasingly personalistic, relying on public works and other welfare measures to gain popularity. Not only did this lead to rising dissatisfaction within the military, but to a reevaluation among the major social actors of their respective political strategies. This took concrete form when the leaders of the three major parties—Rómulo Betancourt (AD), Rafael Caldera (COPEI), and Jovita Villalba (URD)—met in New York in December 1957 to discuss coordinating antiregime activities and cooperating in a transition to democracy.

The meeting was followed by sharp denunciations of the regime by prominent business and civic leaders. In January 1958 Pérez Jiménez was overthrown and a provisional *junta* was established consisting of three military officers and two businessmen. The period between the end of the dictatorship and the December elections witnessed two significant coup attempts by right-wing military factions. As a demonstration of support for the transition, mass demonstrations were held.

The most significant event of this period came, however, in October 1958, when the three major parties signed the Pact of Punto Fijo. The pact was an explicit recognition of the lessons learned from the breakdown of democracy during the *trienio* (1945–48). The extreme polarization and intense partisan conflicts of that period were seen as having provided the basis for the military's intervention. The pact denounced the use of violence and demagoguery, and recognized the existence of parties representing diverse points of view as a necessary and legitimate condition. In addition, the parties pledged their adherence to a common program of governance that would be implemented by a coalition government after the elections. This coalition was to be formed regardless of the outcome, though it would be led by the winner. It is important to note that the parties agreed to consider the election as a vote of confidence for the democratic system and that should a party split from the coalition, its opposition should not be viewed as opposition to the democratic system.

Parties and Social Conciliation

The consolidation period following the election of Betancourt coincided with a significant fragmentation of the party system and a growing leftist insurgency. A key question evolved around the position of Cuba in the hemisphere. In part, the hard line taken against the Castro regime reflected an unwillingness to further antagonize the Eisenhower administration after the rioting that occurred during Vice President Nixon's visit. This in turn alienated Castro sympathizers in AD who split off to form what would later become a guerrilla movement. The URD, also facing internal factionalization, also left the coalition in 1960.

Continued divisions in AD resulted in factional splits in 1962 and again in 1967. These divisions, combined with a general decline in its popular support, meant that AD lost the position of electoral dominance it had enjoyed during the *trienio*. This was an important factor in promoting the electoral game as a viable means to achieve political power. By the time of the 1968 elections, factional disputes had crippled AD enough so that COPEI and Rafael Caldera could capture the presidency. Yet Caldera would continue the tradition of governing through a multiparty consensus and compromise.

Efforts at conciliation with groups that had played a significant role in the breakdown of democracy also characterized the consolidation phase. Since the last attempt at revolt in 1966, the military has not intervened in political affairs. Yet it increased its own institutional prerogatives with the founding of a national war college in 1976 and with the establishment of military-run enterprises that maintain and manufacture weapons.

More recently, former military officers led by Arnaldo Castro Hurtado have formed an "antiparty" party called New Generation. During the Betancourt administration (from 1959 to 1964), a purge of interventionist officers was combined with improved benefits for military personnel. Moreover, the pro-

Cuban leftist insurgency that developed strengthened the government's argument that without cooperation a Cuban-style disintegration of the military as an institution would occur.

Betancourt had already cracked down on the revolutionary left by closing its presses and expelling its labor leaders. By the late sixties, however, the insurgency had clearly collapsed, as the inapplicability of the Cuban model of revolt became apparent. Most of these groups were by the mid-seventies reintegrated into the democratic process. The crackdown on the groups in revolt and the willingness to readmit them into the system appear to demonstrate the primacy the Venezuelan system places upon observing the "rules of the game."

Efforts at reconciliation were also directed at the Church, business, and agrarian interests. The Church, which had bitterly opposed AD's educational policies during the *trienio*, tempered its opposition as leading Catholics were given a role in government under the sponsorship of COPEI, and a concordat with the Vatican was signed during the Leóni administration (from 1964 to 1969). In a similar fashion, land reform was carried out only after extensive consultations had taken place and the most radical peasant leaders had either been coopted or removed. Labor relations followed a pattern that likewise emphasized deradicalization. Ties between unions and parties were strengthened through a new system of proportional representation. In addition, the right to strike was further curtailed.

Stable Competition

The elections of 1968 that brought Rafael Caldera to the presidency with only 29 percent of the vote nonetheless marked an important watershed in the consolidation phase. It represented the first time in Venezuelan history that an opposition party had taken power through the power of the ballot box. Indeed, by the 1973 elections, when AD's Carlos Andrés Pérez won, it was obvious that the Venezuelan party system had evolved into a two-party dominant system. Both major parties began employing foreign, particularly U.S., media experts and spending large sums of money and a good deal of time electioneering. The leftist parties continued to be plagued by factionalism. Efforts to form a unified leftist slate have remained incomplete. Moreover, the fortunes of the URD declined considerably since it left the governing coalition.

A key resource that contributed to the durability of Venezuela's most brutal dictatorship, that of Juan Vicente Gómez (from 1908 to 1935), has also been critical to the maintenance of Venezuela's democracy. Oil has been the major source of foreign exchange but also a cause of external pressure. Yet despite demands during the first decade of democracy for an immediate nationalization of this important sector, Venezuela's leaders moved cautiously through incremental and carefully negotiated steps. The first significant step toward nationalization did not come until the Petroleum Reversion Law of 1971. Nationalization itself was not fully completed until 1976. Venezuela therefore

avoided major external financial and political pressure during its transition and consolidation phases.

By the late seventies the oil industry was contributing nearly 70 percent of national revenues. Oil revenues have until very recently helped to prevent sharp swings in the economy and have provided the financial resources that have benefited all segments of society. The extraordinary growth of the state sector, which has been tied to oil, has provided significant employment opportunities in an otherwise stagnant economy. For the two major parties, this has enhanced their patronage power. In keeping with the "rules of the game," both parties respect the right to use this economic resource to provide political benefits in the form of employment and services to their supporters. In turn, this has fostered the mediating role of parties between the state and society in Venezuela.

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DOMINICAN REPUBLIC, 1961-1978: The Transition "From Without"

Chronology of Key Events

MAY 1961-DECEMBER 1962: General Rafael Trujillo is assassinated; a council of state prepares for elections. Juan Bosch is elected with 59.5 percent of the vote.

SEPTEMBER 1963: Bosch is ousted by a coup led by Colonel Wessin y Wessin; a ruling triumvirate is installed.

APRIL 1965–AUGUST 1965: Young army officers revolt for a return of Bosch. A military *junta* is installed as fighting begins between loyalist and constitutionalist forces. U.S. Marines land at the request of the *junta* and take up positions to defend loyalist troops. An OAS mission is sent. After heavy fighting, an agreement is reached. Héctor García Godoy is to become a provisional president, followed by elections in a year.

JULY 1966–SEPTEMBER 1966: Joaquín Balaguer narrowly defeats Juan Bosch for the presidency. The last contingent of U.S. Marines is withdrawn.

MAY 1970: Balaguer is reelected: His party captures 60 of the 74 Chamber of Deputies seats and all but one of the Senate seats.

NOVEMBER 1973: Bosch quits the Dominican Revolutionary Party (PRD), which moves to the center under Antonio Guzmán and José Francisco Peña Gómez.

MAY 1974: Balaguer is elected to a third term as three out of the four opposition parties abstain from the elections.

JUNE 1975: A major crackdown on the opposition is launched as strikes and demonstrations increase. Two hundred and fifty labor and party leaders are arrested.

MAY 1978: Vote counting is halted, but after pressure from the United States and others, the vote counting resumes and Antonio Guzmán (PRD) is declared president.

Introduction

The transition to democracy in the Dominican Republic that began after the assassination of General Rafael Trujillo was punctuated by a breakdown, civil war conditions, and direct foreign military intervention. Through its actions, the United States ended the nation's political stalemate and altered the perceptions and resources of the groups competing for power. From the military intervention in 1965 to the crucial political intervention during the 1978 elections, the United States has helped direct the course of Dominican democracy.

Authoritarian Relapse and Disintegration

The nine-month government of Juan Bosch, who was elected in December 1962, antagonized a large number of traditional groups, including the Church, business, and landed interests, with its reformist policies. In addition, the security forces continued to be dominated by officers loyal to the former

dictator Trujillo. The ouster of Bosch and his PRD in September of the following year did not, however, result in a stable conservative coalition. Following the coup that was led by Colonel Wessin y Wessin, a ruling triumvirate of three businessmen was installed in power. The first public disagreement arose when the president of the triumvirate, Dr. Emilio de los Santos, resigned in protest at the repression then being carried out. Meanwhile in Puerto Rico, the leaders of several leftist parties including the PRD signed the Pact of Río Piedras, pledging to cooperate to restore democracy.

A significant rift in the armed forces occurred in April 1965 when a group of young army officers revolted in favor of a restoration of democratic rule. As a "constitutionalist" government was declared, the triumvirate resigned. Taking up positions in the central business district of Santo Domingo, loyalist troops led by Colonel Wessin y Wessin fought the constitutionalist forces. The loyalists installed a military *junta* to replace the triumvirate. By mid-April the conflict appeared to have degenerated into a civil war. It was at this point that both sides escalated the conflict to break an apparent deadlock. Constitutional forces, and particularly the PRD, began to arm civilians, and the *junta* appealed for U.S. military support.

United States Intervention

President Lyndon Johnson had recognized the triumvirate in December 1963, reversing the nonrecognition policy of the Kennedy administration. Economic aid was also restored, including the release of a \$25 million International Monetary Fund (IMF) loan. The primary motivation for this pro-regime policy was increased apprehension over the strength of the left, particularly that of a guerrilla movement that raised fears of "another Cuba." The rapid disintegration of the regime as well as the arming of civilians in mid-April of 1965 led the United States to accept the *junta's* appeal for military support. On 28 April the first contingent of what would total twenty thousand marines landed. They immediately created an International Security Zone around the embassy district, dividing the constitutionalist's military positions.

After committing the United States to a full-scale unilateral intervention, President Johnson sought international mediation through the OAS. An OAS negotiated settlement was finally reached at the end of June, after U.S. troops and rebels had engaged in heavy fighting. The Institutional and Reconciliation Acts called for a provisional presidency led by Héctor García Godoy, a centrist and a former PRD member, to be followed in a year by elections. In return, constitutionalist forces would surrender and pledge loyalty to the new president. The agreement came in obvious recognition that the presence of U.S. forces had turned the ground situation decisively against the rebel forces. Yet it did not represent a restoration of the conservative coalition. The fighting and intervention had split the 1963 coalition. The military *junta* led by General Imbert resigned, while business leaders and the Church (which had played a negotiating role through the papal nuncio) approved the agreement.

The United States continued to play an important role even after the withdrawal of the marines in September 1966. Economic aid was significantly increased. The sugar quota was raised for the Dominican Republic, providing an extra \$70 million a year. Moreover, the U.S. embassy, with a staff of nine hundred, became the second largest in the hemisphere. During the 1966 electoral campaign, the United States was accused of using its influence through such channels as the Voice of America to take pro-Balaguer positions and to discredit Bosch.

Precaious Consolidation

The period following the inauguration of Joaquín Balaguer and his Reformist Party (PR) government witnessed serious efforts designed to neutralize his opponents, particularly those in the military and among business and labor. Balaguer continued García Godoy's policy of "exiling" prominent loyalist military leaders like Wessin y Wessin by means of diplomatic assignments. Others were reassigned to posts outside of the Santo Domingo or else were simply retired. In the first major challenge to his regime from the left, the transport workers strike of 1969, Balaguer demonstrated a harsh resolve to face down his opponents. The strike, organized to protest austerity measures such as the wage freeze, was also supported by student groups and Marxist parties and was seen as a test of Balaguer's strength. The government declared a state of emergency and hired "veterans" of the armed forces to replace the workers and break the strike.

Balaguer's tough labor policy was not sufficient, however, to guarantee him support from right-wing groups. His policies encouraging foreign investment, a patronage-laden bureaucracy, and his increasingly personalistic rule alienated important sectors of the elite. In the 1970 elections, former loyalist leader Wessin y Wessin and his newly founded party, the PQD, joined with their formerly bitter enemies, Bosch's PRD, in boycotting the elections. Nevertheless, with the open support of army commander General Enrique Pérez y Pérez, Balaguer won a sweeping electoral victory. The campaign was marked by a series of assassinations and charges of sedition and corruption on both sides.

The 1970 elections initiated a period of intense polarization between the government of Balaguer and the opposition that would culminate with the 1978 elections. A revival of guerrilla movements led to the instituting of new security measures and a sharp crackdown on the PRD. The PRD itself had moved closer to the center of the political spectrum, especially after Bosch quit the party and created a splinter group. The 1974 elections, which saw Balaguer elected to a third term, were marred by charges of fraud and by abstention rates as high as 70 percent. Three of the four opposition parties, including the PRD, signed the Santiago Agreement, abstaining from the elections and denouncing the Balaguer administration as oppressive. In his third term, Balaguer increasingly used the military and emergency decrees to suppress the opposition.

Labor and opposition party leaders were arrested and controls on the press were increased. Clashes often turned violent, as with the student protests of March-April 1975 at the Universidad Autónoma de Santo Domingo.

The patronage machinery and personal alliances with the military that had supported Balaguer in office for over a decade collapsed during the 1978 elections. Opposition groups coalesced around the centrist candidacy of the PRD's Antonio Guzmán. However, as it appeared that Guzmán would win, military troops entered the electoral commission's headquarters and stopped the counting. It remains unclear who ordered these moves. Nevertheless, within a day the Carter administration let it be known that aid would be cut off if the vote counting was not allowed to continue on a fair basis. Protests also came from Latin America's democracies, as well as from groups in the Dominican Republic, particularly the Church, business leaders, and all political parties (including Balaguer's own PR). The armed forces were apparently divided on the possibility of staging a coup. In any event, within forty-eight hours the army withdrew and Balaguer promised to honor the election results. Antonio Guzmán was subsequently declared the new president.

In the period since 1978, democracy in the Dominican Republic has faced a series of challenges. Hurricane David in 1979 and a sharp fall in sugar prices produced rising unemployment and inflation. Moreover, the government has had to confront demands that it impose austerity measures from the IMF. Both Antonio Guzmán and his PRD successor, Salvador Jorge Blanco (from 1982 to 1986) faced large-scale protests from business and labor over economic policy. The most serious challenge occurred in mid-1984 when rioting caused by food price increases resulted in renewed rumors of a military coup. Balaguer was elected to the presidency again, in 1986.

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BRAZIL, 1974-1987: The Transition "from Above"

Chronology of Key Events

JANUARY 1974-NOVEMBER 1974: General Ernesto Geisel is inaugurated as president and initiates policy of *abertura* ("political opening"). In congressional elections the opposition party MDB captures sixteen of twenty-two contested Senate seats.

APRIL 1977-AUGUST 1977: The "April Package" is announced by Geisel, recessing the Congress and increasing restrictions on the opposition. This is followed by protests and demonstrations throughout the summer months.

DECEMBER 1977: The Institutional Acts that have governed Brazil since 1964 are replaced with new laws. The reform of the party system is also announced.

JANUARY 1978: João Figueiredo takes office as president.

NOVEMBER 1982: In elections, the opposition parties gain ten of twenty-two governorships, while the regime maintains its majorities in Congress and the state assemblies.

JANUARY 1984-APRIL 1984: A major push for direct presidential elections includes a demonstration of two hundred thousand in São Paulo, the largest in several years. An amendment demanding direct elections is defeated in the regime-controlled Congress.

JANUARY 1985-MARCH 1985: Tancredo Neves, the leader of the opposition party (PMDB) is elected president in electoral college by a 450-180 margin. After the death of Tancredo, his vice-president José Sarney is sworn in.

FEBRUARY 1986: President Sarney announces "Plan Cruzado," a heterodox economic program designed to tackle persistent inflation.

Introduction

The distinctiveness of democratization in Brazil rests on the fact that it has been directed by a strong central state, responding as much to the internal conflicts of the military as to the weak and fragmented opposition. The process began with President Geisel's policy of liberalization (*abertura*) from 1974 to 1979, and culminated in the 1985 presidential elections. In the interval, the military government defined the parameters of political conduct both for itself and the opposition. Despite the elections, the Brazilian military has maintained the vast institutional prerogatives it has accumulated over the course of its twenty-year rule.

Military Politics and Abertura

The selection of General Ernesto Geisel in 1974 as the official presidential candidate represented neither a consensus nor a conscious choice by the military as an institution to move toward liberalization. Though General Geisel had a direct link to the legal-constitutional tradition of former president Castello Branco (who served from 1964 to 1967), his reputation as a good administrator seems to have been the main reason for his selection. Geisel, along with his chief political advisor and former leader of the National Intelligence Service (SNI), General Golbery do Couto e Silva, were to move away from the grand public works projects and serious human rights abuses of the Costa e Silva and Medici periods (from 1967 to 1974).

The first major challenge to the new administration came with the 1974 congressional elections. Having allowed a relatively free campaign, the regime found itself confronting a strong showing by the opposition party. To a large degree, the results came as a reaction against the worsening economic situation. The oil shock of 1973-74 had put the economy into a recession and seemed to suggest an end to the "Brazilian Miracle." Despite pressure from hardliners, the regime honored the election results. Yet Geisel did not hesitate to use his powers, including the suspension of political rights, against those who appeared to challenge the government excessively.

That the pace of liberalization was completely at the discretion of the regime was reaffirmed with the "April Package" put forth in 1977. After the Congress resisted the regime's initiatives, Geisel declared it in recess. He then announced the replacement of direct gubernatorial elections in 1978 with indirect elections through the regime-controlled electoral college. In addition, he extended the presidential term to six years, prohibited electioneering on radio and television, and created additional senate seats to be selected by pro-regime state assemblies. These measures were followed by the arrest of opposition leader Alencar Furtado after he had sharply attacked the regime.

The reaction to what appeared to be a reversal of the liberalization process was pronounced. Protests were widespread in the summer of 1977, and they came from a wide array of groups including the Church, students, business, and labor. Some have suggested that what appeared to be a crackdown was in fact an attempt to goad opposition groups into action. In this way, Geisel and Golbery hoped to demonstrate to hardliners that the only alternative to liberalization would be unprecedented mass repression. The events of late 1977 seem to support this Machiavellian interpretation.

In late October, Geisel dismissed the minister of the army, General Silvio Coelho da Fogaça. By dismissing a leading critic of liberalization, Geisel asserted his own firm control and adherence to *abertura*. This was followed in December by his announcement that new legislation would be enacted to replace the institutional acts that had been used by the military to govern since 1964. Moreover, the party system was to be reorganized and given greater leeway.

Perhaps most importantly, it was announced in January that Geisel had chosen the leader of SNI, General João Figueiredo, as his successor. Although he had ties to conservative factions in the military, Figueiredo was seen as a supporter of liberalization.

Opposition

The acceleration of liberalization had the effect of reactivating the opposition groups in the society. The regime always had to cope with opposition, including by guerrillas in the late sixties and early seventies. The Church, as the only nonmilitary institution with a claim to national legitimacy, was, however, probably the regime's most persistent source of opposition. The Conference of Bishops (CNBB), strongly influenced by liberation theology, made perhaps its strongest statement against the regime in a November 1976 pastoral communication denouncing the use of torture, censorship, and corruption. It also condemned the lack of land reform and inadequate programs for the poor. The creation of Basic Christian Communities helped encourage people to defend their rights and make claims.

Another source of pressure on the question of human rights proved to be the United States. A State Department report criticized human rights abuses in 1977 and President Carter publicly referred to Brazil as a violator of human rights. The Brazilian response was to end its military assistance treaty with the United States.

The labor movement, by contrast, was a divided and effectively repressed opposition. It therefore came as a surprise when the metalworkers union led by "Lula" (Luis Inacio da Silva) achieved what was viewed as a strike victory in May 1978. But the same tactics failed in subsequent years, and a strike in 1980 that garnered widespread support, resulted in Lula's arrest. Although the private sector applauded the regime's stand on labor, it also supported the policy of liberalization. In 1978 and in 1983, leading business groups issued statements supporting moves to democracy.

Elections and Transition

As Figueiredo took office in 1979, the economy again felt the shocks of oil price rises and world recession. He signaled the continuation of *abertura* by retaining several of Geisel's advisors, including General Golbery. A crucial test for the regime came with the November 1982 elections. Most of the governorships as well as a large part of the Congress, state assemblies, and municipal posts were to be elected.

The results gave off mixed signals. The government retained its majorities, but lost important governorships, such as those of São Paulo, Minas Gerais, Rio de Janeiro, and Paraná to leading opposition figures, including Léonel Brizola (PDT), Tancredo Neves (PMDB), and Franco Montoro (PMDB). The elections proved to be an important turning point. The opposition was pro-

vided with the resources that accompany state office. This included a new sense of legitimacy for leaders and parties that only a few years before had been viewed by the government as enemies. Yet because the new opposition had a wide base of support and was thus seen as being responsible, they could provide a bulwark against the radical leftist opposition that the military truly feared. The deepening economic crisis and a general trend toward democratization on the rest of the continent also contributed to the growing sense that the military lacked a sufficient legitimate reason to continue ruling.

Though the ability of the military to control the scope and pace of change made *abertura* a nine-year process, the aftermath of the 1982 elections significantly altered these dynamics because the military lost much of its vaunted capacity for control. The period from 1982 to 1985 can therefore be properly considered the transition phase. By mid-1983, the progovernment Social Democratic Party (PDS) was divided, with the liberal factions gaining strength. Figueiredo's decision not to nominate a successor also contributed to a scramble among possible contenders.

The public campaign, which began in January 1984, to hold direct elections to the presidency the following year, similarly proved decisive in splitting the pro-regime forces. Some in the PSD, such as Vice-President Aureliano Chaves, openly supported direct elections. The issue also galvanized the opposition parties into holding a public dialogue and mass demonstrations. Nonetheless, when a vote on a constitutional amendment for direct elections arose in the Congress, President Figueiredo declared a state of emergency and exercised sufficient pressure to secure its defeat.

The defeat of the amendment accelerated the defection of liberal PDS factions to the opposition. PDS governors and congressmen openly supported the candidacy of Tancredo Neves over that of Paulo Maluf. Tancredo had created a broad center coalition from the PMDB, PDT, and factions from the PR and PDS. His own background was as a moderate coalition-builder. Figueiredo's only condition for the civilian candidates was that there were to be no prosecutions for actions taken by the military during its rule and that the military retain control of the arms industry. Both conditions were accepted by the candidates. On 15 January 1985 Tancredo was elected by the electoral college, becoming the first civilian president elected since 1960.

Uncertain Consolidation

The death of Tancredo came as a shock, but it did not significantly affect the final outcome of the transition. His vice-president, José Sarney, former head of the PDS and a compromise figure, was duly sworn in as president. However, much of the initial enthusiasm that accompanied the transfer of executive power dissipated in the next two years as a weak economic recovery was followed by yet another downturn. Within a year of the February 1986 announcement of the heterodox "Plan Cruzado," Brazil's new democracy was facing an economic and political crisis. Persistent high inflation, large external debts, and growing

labor unrest led to a PMDB sweep of the November 1986 congressional elections. The magnitude of the vote and the increasing willingness of opposition leaders to challenge executive authority, especially in debates over the constitution, considerably weakened Sarney's position. With the military maintaining many of its self-defined prerogatives and its capacity to veto attempts to curtail them, the outcome of Brazil's democratic experiment remains uncertain.

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ECUADOR, 1975-1986: Institutional Deadlock and Fragile Coalitions

Chronology of Key Events

SEPTEMBER 1975-JUNE 1976: An attempted coup led by General González Alvear promising a return to democracy is defeated. In January, General Rodríguez Lara is replaced by a military triumvirate, which announces plans to oversee a transition to democracy.

JANUARY 1978: By a plebiscite, a new constitution is selected to replace the 1945 constitution.

JULY 1978-MARCH 1979: In the first round of voting, Jaime Roldós Aguilera leads with 31 percent of the vote but he must face second-place Sixto Durán Ballén (a Social Christian) in a run-off election. An official recount by the Supreme Electoral Tribunal is punctuated by renewed threats from the military and rightist groups to halt the electoral process.

APRIL 1979: Jaime Roldós Aguilera is elected president with 70 percent of the vote.

AUGUST 1979-JUNE 1980: Roldós's legislative program is stalled in the Congress by a Bucaram-rightist alliance.

MAY 1981-MAY 1982: Jaime Roldós is killed in an air crash. He is succeeded by Vice President Osvaldo Hurtado, who introduces the first of a series of austerity measures and forges a center-leftist majority in the Congress.

MAY 1984: León Febres Cordero, a Social Christian leader, defeats Rodrigo Borja (ID) by one hundred thousand votes for the presidency.

OCTOBER 1984-JUNE 1985: Febres's legislative program and Supreme Court nominations are stalled in the Congress. An alliance with the opposition is negotiated to break the deadlock.

MARCH 1986: An attempted coup led by Air Force General Frank Vargas is thwarted.

Introduction

Sharp institutional conflicts, party fragmentation, and political polarization have all been key aspects of the Ecuadorian political system since democratization was initiated. The transition phase, which began in 1976 with the removal of the reformist General Guillermo Rodríguez Lara, culminated in the 1979 presidential elections. Though the transition occurred in a period of relative economic prosperity, successive democratic governments both of the left and the right have had to confront a serious economic decline as well as continued threats of an authoritarian relapse.

Authoritarian Breakdown

The military regime that came to power in 1972 strongly emphasized its interest in promoting structural changes, much in the manner of its military neighbor to the south, Peru. However, unlike the latter, the Ecuadorian military lacked both the institutional commitment and administrative capacity to institute major reforms. In September 1975 an attempted coup by General González Alvear was launched, promising a return to democracy, and it was defeated only after heavy fighting. Rodríguez's rule was further shaken by a successful general strike in November, leading to charges from business and the military that the government could no longer control the nation. In January 1976, Rodríguez Lara was replaced by a military triumvirate led by Admiral Alfredo Poveda, who announced his intention to oversee a transition to democracy. Five months later, after consulting the parties and business, the regime unveiled its transition mechanism. It appointed three commissions to draft a

constitution and draw up rules for parties and elections. A referendum was to be held in January 1978 to choose between a revised version of the 1945 constitution and a completely new document.

Transition and Elections

By mid-1977 the commissions had completed their work and the parties began campaigning for the referendum. Both the center-left parties (CFP, ID) and the Marxist left (united in a Broad Front) urged adoption of the new constitution, which called for a unicameral legislature and gave the Congress and the president the right to call plebiscites. By contrast, the rightist parties (the Liberals and Conservatives) urged retention of the old constitution. The referendum was therefore viewed as a preliminary test of strength for the first round of presidential elections, scheduled for July. When the new constitution won with 43 percent of the vote, it was taken as an indication of the left's strength, and in particular, as a boost for the candidacy of Assad Bucaram, the CFP leader. An old-style populist whose 1972 candidacy helped spark the military intervention, Bucaram was a traditional foe of business interests in Guayaquil, Ecuador's second largest city. When an anti-Bucaram coalition collapsed after the referendum, the military *junta* intervened in the transition by decreeing that a presidential candidate's parents had to have been citizens of Ecuador, eliminating Bucaram, whose parents were Lebanese.

With their leader disqualified, the CFP turned to Jaime Roldós Aguilera, whose youthful charisma and moderate rhetoric distinguished him from his mentor. In an attempt to forge a broad center-left coalition, Roldós chose as his running-mate a political scientist and Christian Democratic leader, Osvaldo Hurtado. To the surprise of most, the Roldós-Hurtado ticket outdistanced two major rivals, the Liberal Raúl Clemente Huerta and the Social Christian Sixto Durán, but not by a wide enough margin to avoid a run-off against the second-place Durán. Moreover, the Supreme Electoral Tribunal announced that it would take at least four months to complete a recount and to initiate the second round of voting.

In the months between the two elections (August 1978 to April 1979), new threats to democratization emerged. Both the Minister of Government General Bolívar Jarrín Cahuenos and the Commander of the Army General Guillermo Durán were known to favor ending the elections. After the first round, a rightist party, which had close ties to the Guayaquil business community, warned that the election of Roldós would pose a danger to democracy.

León Febres Cordero, then president of the Guayaquil Chamber of Commerce, called for the cancelation of the elections and the institution of a constituent assembly to select a president. Most importantly, the chairman of the electoral tribunal, Dr. Rafael Arizaga Vega, claimed on national television that the elections should be canceled due to fraud, in a clear attempt to strengthen the position of headline factions in the military. These moves in turn precipitated efforts to mobilize support for elections by Roldós and his sup-

porters, as well as by labor unions, which launched strikes in support of elections.

The United States, through the commander of U.S. forces at Panama, also strongly warned against an attempt to end the transition. By the end of 1978, Admiral Poveda and the ruling triumvirate had reiterated their support for the transition, set a definite date for the transfer of power, and appointed a new electoral tribunal to continue the recount. In the end, sharp internal military divisions, U.S. pressure, and renewed concern over border disputes with Peru appear to have prevented an authoritarian relapse. Toward the end of the campaign, talks between Roldós and the military produced an agreement that there would be no prosecutions of military figures and that key military interests would be preserved.

In the April 1979 elections, Jaime Roldós was overwhelmingly elected, winning all but one province. The results from the congressional elections were perhaps the most surprising, because the traditional center-right parties captured a mere fifteen of the sixty-nine seats.

Conflict and Fragile Coalitions

The factionalization and institutional conflicts that have characterized Ecuador since 1979 began almost immediately after the August inauguration. During the campaign, Roldós had distanced himself politically from Bucaram. Following the elections, Bucaram negotiated a deal with the conservative parties to ensure his election as president of the Congress. Roldós's reform program was stalled in the Congress throughout 1980 by the Bucaram-conservative alliance. Both sides exchanged threats, with Roldós asserting he would call a plebiscite to pass his reforms, while the Congress began impeachment proceedings against several ministers. By June 1980 the pro-Roldós forces had forged an alliance with center-leftists to form a majority. The break with Bucaram became final in December, when Roldós formed his own party.

The tragic death of Jaime Roldós in a May 1981 air crash did not alter the political dynamic begun by growing party fragmentation. Vice-President Hurtado, who succeeded Roldós, was immediately confronted with a crisis when a leftist group withdrew from the governing coalition. Hurtado also faced the new challenge of a severe economic decline. The price of oil, which accounts for some 60 percent of Ecuador's export income, declined precipitously.

In November 1981 the first of a series of austerity measures was adopted. Price rises had already sparked protests, and in early 1982 serious rioting erupted while strike activity by a leftist labor confederation led to renewed rumors of military intervention. Nevertheless, the 1982 congressional elections did not change the balance of power in the Congress. During this period, however, Hurtado was able to forge a new coalition with Bucaram's party after he died. Symptomatic of the frequent changes in allegiance on the part of the parties, Roldós's party then went into opposition.

By early 1983 the political parties began to jockey over positions for the

following year's presidential elections. The rightist parties, whose influence had declined, formed a National Reconstruction Front (FRN) under the leadership of Social Christian León Febres Cordero. In contrast, the left was highly fragmented with half a dozen candidates. But Rodrigo Borja of the Democratic left (ID) did succeed in narrowly outdistancing Febres Cordero in the first round, only to lose the May 1984 second-round balloting. Significantly, the FRN was not able to alter the balance of power in the Congress, which remained controlled by the center-left. This situation was at the core of the 1984-85 political stalemate.

The Febres Cordero administration moved quickly to implement its conservative economic program, including ending price controls and reducing protection for domestic industry. In June 1985, Ecuador amended its adherence to Decision 24 of the Andean Pact, which requires that foreign firms sending 80 percent of their products abroad be nationalized or enter into mixed enterprise arrangements with the state. Febres's free market policies and his breaking of relations with Nicaragua in late 1985 were particularly well received by the Reagan administration, which adopted a lenient attitude toward the Ecuadorian debt. An agreement in late 1985 allowed the postponement of 1985-89 debt service payments for a twelve-year period.

Yet Febres's conservative policies also resulted in a year-long deadlock with the leftist-controlled Congress over such diverse issues as the minimum wage and Supreme Court nominations. According to the Ecuadorian constitution, legislative disagreements are to be settled by a special constitutional tribunal. However, because seven of the eleven tribunal members were of the left, Febres refused to recognize their jurisdiction in most disputes.

The institutional deadlock of 1984-85 was only settled when Febres negotiated support from the CFP and its new leader, Averroes Bucaram. In return for legislative support, Bucaram received FRN endorsement in his successful bid to head the Congress. In January 1986, Febres proposed several institutional reforms to reduce the influence of the left in the Congress, including allowing independents to run for legislative office. His planned use of the plebiscite to enact these measures led to opposition charges of Febres's "dictatorial power."

Ecuadorian democracy confronted its severest test, however, three months later, when General Frank Vargas seized the Manta air base, accusing Defense Minister General Luis Pineros and Army Chief General Manuel Albuja of corruption. The dispute appeared to be settled when Febres promised to investigate the alleged corruption. Yet two weeks later, Vargas seized the Quito air base, claiming that he was betrayed by Febres. When Vargas threatened to seize power, Febres used the army to seal off the area and Vargas surrendered. Febres managed to complete his term and oversee a fair election in 1988, which was won by Rodrigo Borja.

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PERU, 1975-1987: The Legacy of a Radical Experiment

Chronology of Key Events

AUGUST 1975: General Francisco Morales Bermudez replaces General Juan Velasco Alvarado in a bloodless coup d'état.

JULY 1976-FEBRUARY 1977: An abortive coup by conservative General Bobbio Centurion follows weeks of rioting and strikes. Plan *Tupac Amaru* is announced. It includes an austerity program and sets a timetable for elections.

JULY 1978-JULY 1979: The constituent assembly is elected. APRA gains thirty-seven seats, the left combines for thirty-four seats, while the right totals twenty-nine. AP abstains from the vote. A constitution is drafted and enacted.

MAY 1980: Fernando Belaúnde Terry is elected president with 45.4 percent of the vote, defeating a divided opposition.

MARCH 1981-DECEMBER 1982: A sharp rise in guerrilla activity is noted; 310 attacks are registered in nine months. Neoliberal economic policies and tough antiterrorist laws are enacted by Belaúnde.

NOVEMBER 1983: Opposition candidates sweep the municipal elections. Marxist Alfonso Barrantes becomes mayor of Lima, and human rights groups criticize the army's antiterrorist tactics.

MAY 1985: Alan García Pérez is elected president with 47 percent of the vote.

JANUARY 1986-JULY 1986: Stimulative economic policies including debt ceiling payments are enacted. Prison uprisings result in a massacre and rumors of a military coup.

Introduction

Peru's return to democracy occurred in a context of unprecedented social mobilization and a fragmented party system, and in the presence of a formidable insurgency. The transition began with the election of a constituent assembly in 1978 and culminated in the return of Fernando Belaúnde Terry to the presidency, the office of which he had been deprived by the 1968 coup d'état. With the election of Alan García Pérez in 1985, Peru's consolidation phase took a decidedly leftist-nationalistic turn, uncommon in the most recent democratization efforts of Latin America.

Authoritarian Breakdown and Economic Pressures

The authoritarian regime of General Juan Velasco Alvarado, which took power in 1968, has been described as "populist," "modernizing," and "radical." But as commitments to increased public expenditures confronted a depressed market for Peru's primary product exports, and international creditors demanded fiscal austerity, the military's social experiment began to falter. Velasco's declining physical health added a sense of uncertainty to the possibility of continuing the regime's reformist policies.

By mid-1975, a coalition of moderate and conservative officers had already formed around General Francisco Morales Bermudez, Velasco's prime minister. In August of that year, an Institutional Manifesto was issued by the nation's five regional army commanders declaring Morales Bermudez president of the republic. Although they pledged continued support to the "revolution," it soon became apparent that Morales Bermudez's "second phase" was to be far more conservative than Velasco's "first phase."

Within a year, an austerity program was announced providing for budget cuts, sharp increases in consumer prices, and a devaluation. The reaction was swift. Strikes and three days of rioting were followed by the declaration of a state of emergency. Popular organizations created by Velasco to foster corporatist control among peasants and workers formed a Front for the Defense of the Revolution to coordinate antiregime activities. Thus, ironically, the very organizations created to support authoritarianism in Peru were being used to bring about its collapse.

Labor unions were to play a significant role in this opposition, and strikes increased dramatically between 1974 and 1978. Similarly business groups exerted pressure for an end to the regime, although their concern was primarily with dismantling the reforms of the Velasco era. Pressure on the regime came not only from these societal groups, but also from within the military. An attempted coup by the conservative General Bobbio Centurion was thwarted in June 1976. Partly to placate the right wing of the armed forces, most remaining generals associated with Velasco were moved. Some, such as Leonidas Rodríguez and Tantaleán Vanini, went on to form or to join opposition organizations. By the end of 1976, the military as an institution had lost any semblance of a consensus on how to rule the country.

In February 1977 the regime unveiled Plan *Tupac Amaru*, a plan for democratization with economic measures designed to reduce social spending, encourage decentralization, and allow greater foreign investment. The impetus for much of the regime's economic austerity in this period came from external pressure, particularly from the International Monetary Fund. Indeed, much of the 1977-79 period involved a cycle of austerity followed by riots, and then relaxation followed by renewed IMF pressure. That pressure culminated in the cut-off of Peru's access to IMF funds in 1978.

There is little doubt that creditor-induced austerity greatly added to the regime's unpopularity. The plan also announced elections for a constituent assembly the following year. That assembly was to provide an opportunity for all parties to help write a new constitution to take effect when power was transferred to civilians in 1980.

Transition and Electoral Shifts

The scheduled elections significantly changed the dynamics of the transition, and parties began taking a leading role in setting the political agenda. The number of parties had dramatically increased from five parties in the last elections (held in 1963) to thirteen in 1978. Moreover, nearly all of the new parties were on the left. Aside from this shift to the left, the party system was highly fragmented, with many parties that were little more than coalitions of local or regional organizations.

Before the elections took place, the first general strike in half a century was called. It was designed not only as a repudiation of the military regime, but also as a demonstration of the left's new-found strength. This was confirmed by the election results: the left won thirty-four seats, while Peru's oldest party, The American Popular Revolutionary Alliance (APRA) gained thirty-seven seats. Four rightist parties won twenty-nine seats. But the election results were marred by the absence of Fernando Belaúnde Terry's Popular Action Party (AP). His decision to abstain appeared to be a calculated risk, but one that paid off handsomely.

By not participating in the assembly, AP maintained its status as a party in opposition, while the other parties were seen as participating in the military's final days and engaging in petty partisan jockeying over the constitution. Belaúnde's ability to rise above the fray was enhanced by his stalwart opposition to the regime since his own overthrow. Unlike many of the parties, including APRA, which had achieved a *modus vivendi* with the regime, Belaúnde's position justified his claim in the 1980 elections of being the candidate least associated with the military's twelve-year rule.

Democracy, Insurgency, and Populism

During the Belaúnde presidency (from 1980 to 1985), neoliberal economic policies and a severe recession combined to produce a dramatic fall in wages and rising inflation. By 1983, a widespread financial crisis had resulted in the

collapse of numerous banks and many rumors of official corruption. Moreover, it was during this period that the Maoist guerrillas *Sendero Luminoso* emerged, launching a violent campaign of bombings and assassinations. Led by a provincial university professor named Abimael Guzman, it has used a fanatical ideology and secret cells to capitalize on the discontent of peasants and the urban poor. The number of attacks consistently increased between 1980 and 1986, spreading beyond the rebels' initial base in Ayacucho into Lima and as far north as the jungle regions of Alto Hualaga.

In December 1982, the government declared Ayacucho under military control, giving all power to a military governor. The increased use of the military was, however, also accompanied by growing charges of human rights abuses. The massacre of journalists at Uchuraccay by apparently progovernment peasants and the discoveries of mass graves seemed to substantiate these charges.

Amid rising concern over the militarization of the countryside and the severe recession, the United Left (IU) coalition made substantial gains in the 1983 municipal elections. The left's reemergence under Alfonso Barrantes in 1983 along with its strong showing in 1978 seemed to indicate that for a significant portion of Peru's new electorate, the Marxist left has now become a viable governing option.

During this same period an important realignment was occurring in the APRA party. A new generation of leaders led by Alan García Pérez entered into key leadership positions. Recalling APRA's early radical roots, they adopted a leftist-nationalist program, attempting to appeal to the new radical electorate. The election of García to the presidency in May 1985 marks an important turning point for Peru's democracy. It is only the second time this century that power has been transferred between two elected presidents, and it is the first time in its sixty-year history that APRA has gained the presidency.

Using his popularity, García initiated several important social and political changes. Attempting to curtail the power of the security forces, he reorganized the police forces, which were widely viewed as abusive and corrupt, and introduced a defense ministry and cut military budgets. His heterodox economic program met with surprising success in its first two years, reactivating an economy that could seemingly only lurch from one recession to another, generating little growth. Nevertheless, with the continued growth of terrorism, the economic downturn, and the sharp decline in García's popularity after the nationalization of the banks in July 1987, Peru's democracy could not be considered consolidated.

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EL SALVADOR, 1979–1986: Transition Amid Internal Warfare

Chronology of Key Events

OCTOBER 1979–DECEMBER 1979: Junior military officers overthrow General Carlos Humberto Romero and install a revolutionary *junta*, which includes moderate and leftist politicians. Land reform and official disbanding of paramilitary organizations (ORDEN) enacted.

JANUARY 1980–MARCH 1980: Center-left politicians, including Guillermo Ungo and Rubén Zamora, resign from *junta* and form *Coordinadora*. Rightist leaders also organize. Political assassinations, including of Archbishop Oscar Romero, increase sharply.

MAY 1980–NOVEMBER 1980: Rightist leader Roberto D'Aubuisson is arrested in coup plot, though he is later released. The headline position in the *junta* solidifies with removal of Colonel Majano. An escalation of guerrilla activities take place.

DECEMBER 1980–JUNE 1981: José Napoleón Duarte, leader of the Christian Democrats (PDC), is chosen president by the *junta*. U.S. military assistance is suspended after the murder of four American nuns. Nonlethal military aid is resumed in January. The Reagan administration issues a special report linking Salvadoran guerrillas to Cuba and Nicaragua. Sharp increases in aid are requested by Reagan, though Congress conditions aid on an improved human rights situation.

MARCH 1982–MARCH 1984: Constituent Assembly elections are held. The right wins a working majority, but a moderate apolitical businessman, Alvaro Magaña is selected interim president. The constitution is enacted in mid-1983, and annual U.S. military aid surpasses \$30 million.

MARCH 1984–NOVEMBER 1984: José Napoleón Duarte is elected president with 53.6 percent of the vote, defeating ARENA's Roberto D'Aubuisson. Meeting with guerrillas at La Palma results in little progress.

MARCH 1985–JANUARY 1986: Elections give the PDC a majority of thirty-three seats in the Legislative Assembly, and 200 of 262 contested municipal posts. Guerrillas adopt low intensity warfare tactics.

Introduction

The most recent effort to achieve democracy in El Salvador was initiated with the 1979 coup d'état. In its aftermath, violence accelerated from both the disloyal left and right, while modest attempts at socioeconomic reform were made. The resources of key actors have been significantly affected by the changing policies of the U.S. government. This external factor and the continued violent polarization has made democratization in El Salvador a tenuous and highly reversible process.

Authoritarian Breakdown and Reaction

Under the hardline rule of General Carlos Humberto Romero (from 1977 to 1979), the military regime established close relations with landowners and rightist paramilitary forces such as ORDEN. On the other hand, nascent guerrilla groups also accelerated their activities, assassinating government officials and bombing industrial plants and offices. The conservative coalition forged by Romero had a weak base of support and was soon shattered by internal bickering.

Under severe pressure from the United States, the Church, and international organizations, the Public Order Law, which had given virtually unrestricted authority to the military, was repealed in early 1979. In August, opposition organizations formed the *Foro Popular* to urge a "popular democratic" government. The *Foro* was notable because it included diverse groups, such as the Christian Democrats (PDC), center-left parties, the Ligas Populares (LP-28), and several trade unions. Nonetheless, the opposition could not successfully challenge the overwhelming force of a regime that could not distinguish an opposition from subversion. Thus, the regime's collapse in October resulted from an internal coup rather than from opposition actions.

Motivated to a large degree by the decline in the military's institutional integrity and growing corruption, which was attributed to the alliance that had been forged with conservative interests, the new "Provisional Revolutionary Government" promised to adopt a reformist program. Land reform, free elections, and respect for human rights were proclaimed as being the goals of the new regime. The *junta* brought into the government moderate politicians from the *Foro*, including Guillermo Ungo, and moderate elements from business.

Yet the military as an institution was far too fragmented to implement all of the proposed reforms, although some measures such as the raising of the minimum wage and the limitation of landholdings to one hundred hectares were enacted. The *junta* was particularly divided over how to deal with the left, Colonels Guillermo García and Nicolás Carranza were far more committed to a hard-line approach than Colonel Adolfo Majano. Moreover, the army could not control the security forces—the National Police, the Treasury Police, and the National Guard—that still maintained contacts with right-wing paramili-

tary groups. For its part, the extreme left used mobilization tactics to pressure the *junta* for more radical reforms and for a clear accounting of those who had disappeared, neither of which the government could produce.

In January 1980 most of the Social Democratic politicians abandoned the government, citing their inability to overcome obstruction from the right on a variety of issues. Later in the month, a new *junta* was formed that relied more heavily on Christian Democratic leaders. It was at this point that violent polarization intensified. Various leftist organizations formed the *Coordinadora Nacional* and called for revolutionary struggle. Two key leaders on the right, Major Roberto D'Aubuisson and José Alberto ("Chele") Medrano, joined forces in the National Democratic Front (FDN). In late February 1980 the Attorney General Mario Zamora was assassinated, and on 30 March Archbishop Oscar Romero was gunned down.

Overall, the first three months of 1980 witnessed 689 political assassinations, mostly carried out by right-wing "death squads." The Christian Democratic (PDC) strategy amid the increasing violence was to create a credible center, with the support of moderate officers and the United States. What the PDC lost in terms of its reformist image by participating in the *junta*, it hoped to gain by creating a viable political space within which it would have an initial advantage. It had already used the little power it had in the regime to push an admittedly limited agrarian reform and bank nationalizations.

United States Influence and Elections

In early May, forces loyal to Colonel Majano seized D'Aubuisson with documents supposedly describing a coup. In the weeks that followed, D'Aubuisson was released and Majano was exiled, an indication of the strengthening of the hardliners' position in the regime. To a large extent the escalation of the guerrilla war had discredited the position of the progressive officers who had argued for rapprochement with the left, and it improved the position of those who saw the "dirty war" as a tactic against subversion. Already by April dissident factions of the PDC led by Héctor Dada broke ranks with Duarte, claiming that the *junta* was not interested in reform or democratization.

The apparent shift to the right by the *junta* was accompanied by increasing rightist confidence that a Reagan victory in the U.S. elections would result in U.S. approval for a rightist takeover. Throughout 1980, the Carter administration warned D'Aubuisson that the United States would not support a right-wing coup, and that conspiracies should be ended. The United States supported the regime that came to power in 1979, but only on condition that it fulfill its promise of reform and free elections.

In December 1980, after the murders of four American Maryknoll sisters and public outrage in the United States, the administration suspended all new military assistance until the murders were clarified. As a result of increased U.S. pressure and the discrediting of D'Aubuisson, a new *junta* was organized in

mid-December in which José Napoleón Duarte would be appointed president. Hardliners in the *junta* clearly suffered a setback, as they were forced to disassociate themselves from the disloyal right and D'Aubuisson's plotting.

The United States increasingly focused on the deteriorating position of the Salvadoran army and the links between the guerrillas and Cuba and Nicaragua. Guerrilla forces had formed a united front (FMLN) in late 1980, and they stepped up their activities in the countryside. In January 1981, the Carter administration announced shipments of "nonlethal" military aid to the Salvadoran army.

With the arrival in office of the Reagan administration, the military aspect of the situation received new emphasis. Yet it was confronted by a reluctant Congress and public opinion fearful of any U.S. military intervention. By the end of the year, U.S. rhetoric had been toned down, though assistance was accelerated. In March 1982 elections were held for a constituent assembly that was to select an interim president and design a new constitution. The results gave the right a working majority in the assembly, as D'Aubuisson's ARENA forged coalitions with other rightist factions. After much infighting and U.S. pressure, a moderate, Alvaro Magaña, an apolitical banker, was chosen interim president.

The Constituent Assembly period (from March 1982 to March 1984) was characterized by rightist efforts to roll back land reform and by an intensification of the guerrilla war. The economy continued to deteriorate, with unemployment and underemployment affecting over two-thirds of the population. U.S. aid dramatically increased, though at lower levels than those requested by the Reagan administration.

The Duarte Administration

The election of José Napoleón Duarte to the presidency in March 1984 was a crucial turning point in El Salvador's democratization. Duarte brought improved credibility to the process, particularly abroad. As a result, aid from the United States as well as from Western Europe increased. His government moved quickly against the disloyal right, reorganizing the security forces such as the Treasury Police and sending rightist officers abroad. The Reagan administration continued to warn against a rightist coup, and indicated that it fully supported Duarte's policy of creating a centrist coalition. The military with the assistance of U.S. advisors also stepped up activities against the FMLN, emphasizing counterinsurgency tactics to win the loyalties of local populations. Human rights violations in particular declined from their 1980-82 levels.

Nonetheless, facing grass-roots pressure from within the PDC and a recognition that a prolonged war could only further weaken a war-torn economy, President Duarte invited the guerrilla leaders to negotiate an end to the conflict. For their part, the guerrillas' increasing difficulties against a better-equipped and trained Salvadoran army, and their declared willingness to negotiate, combined to produce a meeting with the government at La Palma in November

1984. Surprisingly, most groups supported Duarte's efforts, though the military emphasized that the 1983 constitution was nonnegotiable. What was not surprising was that an agreement was not immediately reached. Guerrilla demands for immediate incorporation into the government would have violated the tenuous understanding Duarte had reached with powerful social groups, such as the military and business. To secure at least the tolerance of the right, Duarte acknowledged the inviolability of the 1983 constitution and slowed the pace of reform. Similarly, he assured the military that prosecution for human rights abuses would not be pursued, and that the military would receive the equipment and training it deemed necessary.

In the period since the La Palma meeting, the Duarte government faced renewed challenges from the FMLN, which launched a "low intensity war" that emphasized assassinations, kidnappings, and urban violence. Nevertheless, divisions between the PDR leaders and the FMLN appeared to grow over the new tactics. Several PDR leaders began to return to El Salvador in early 1986. The kidnapping of Duarte's own daughter in September 1985, which appeared to harden his position, may also have contributed to the renewed tensions in the guerrilla camp.

Although the PDC won a majority of the Legislature in March 1985, the four subsequent years of war and economic deterioration caused a division within the PDC. In the presidential election in March 1989, the Salvadoran people chose the rightist candidate Alfredo Cristiani of ARENA.

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the situation, it is said, is especially seen in the government's unwillingness to encourage returning FDR rebels.

ARGENTINA, 1981-1987: Authoritarian Breakdown and Military Defeat

Chronology of Key Events

MARCH 1981-JULY 1981: General Roberto Viola assumes the presidency after sharp infighting over political and economic strategies. Viola's overtures to the opposition result in the formation of the *Multipartidaria*, or party alliance, to negotiate a return to democracy with the regime.

DECEMBER 1981-MARCH 1982: Viola is replaced by hardline factions in the *Junta* and General Galtieri is named president. He imposes an austerity program and ends talk of a transition that is not "directed from above." Antiregime demonstrations begin and the parties harden their positions.

APRIL 1982-JULY 1982: Argentina invades the Falkland (Malvinas) Islands. The British naval force arrives and surrounds Argentine troops, who surrender at Port Stanley. Galtieri resigns and is eventually replaced by General Bignone.

SEPTEMBER 1982-DECEMBER 1982: Demonstrations and strikes increase as an election timetable is announced.

OCTOBER 1983: Raúl Alfonsín wins the presidency with 52 percent of the vote. This is the first defeat of the Peronists in a presidential race.

JUNE 1985: *Plan Austral* is unveiled by President Alfonsín to control inflation and increase economic confidence. Austerity includes a new currency, wage and price freezes, and budget cuts.

MARCH-APRIL 1987: A series of rebellions by junior military officers takes place, protesting prosecutions for actions taken during the military regime.

Introduction

Argentina's road to democracy was conditioned by deep cleavages in the military and among political parties, as well as a decisive military defeat. The transition phase began in early 1981 when moderate factions led by General Roberto Viola assumed the presidency. Though he was later ousted, his overtures to civilian groups helped set the stage for an expected return to democratic rule. The War of the Malvinas in early 1982 accelerated the disintegration of authoritarianism and paved the way for elections the following year and for the democratic government of President Raúl Alfonsín.

Authoritarian Breakdown

The military government led by General Jorge Videla that came to power in 1976 maintained its unity through its pursuit of social and economic "efficiency," which the military as an institution diagnosed as being lacking in modern Argentina. It was during this period (from 1976 to 1981) that the worst of the human rights abuses occurred, as the regime attempted to eliminate "subversives." In addition, a neoliberal economic program similar to that being pursued in Pinochet's Chile was adopted. By early 1981, however, the military consensus had been shattered as inflation had again reached 100 percent and the economy had entered a recession. Middle-class and business groups, many of whom had supported the 1976 coup, were especially hard hit by the lowering of protection for domestic industries.

The designation of General Roberto Viola as president in March 1981 was an attempt to increase political support for the regime while signaling the possibility of a return to democracy. He appointed conciliatory figures to his cabinet, with seven of the thirteen cabinet positions going to civilians. His new Interior Minister, General Horacio Tomás Liendo, openly called for a dialogue. Political parties that would include the Peronists. In July, the principal political parties formed the *Multipartidaria*, an alliance whose purpose was to negotiate a return to democracy with the regime. These moves toward reconciliation that were aimed at gaining a wider base of support among the middle classes and even labor led hardliners in the regime to issue warnings against a return to "populism and anarchy."

The hardline factions of Generals Leopoldo Galtieri and Cristino Nicolaides finally overthrew Viola in December 1981 and promised a return of "national reorganization." With General Galtieri as president, a new austerity program was announced. He also announced that a return to democracy would take place only if the process were controlled by the regime. The reaction of the *Multipartidaria* was divided between those urging moderation, led by the Radicals (UCR) and Peronists, and those urging a harder position and greater social mobilization (left-wing Peronists).

The unwillingness of the regime to negotiate a timetable for elections and the increasing harshness of orthodox economic policies soon led to a general hardening of the opposition's position. This also coincided with a rise in labor protests against the regime. The Peronist unions staged the largest antigovernment rally since 1976 at the end of March 1982, which was brutally broken up by police and army troops.

The Malvinas War and the Opposition

President Galtieri ordered an invasion of the British-controlled Falkland Islands on 2 April 1982, an obvious effort to end internal divisions in the military and rally nationalist support from the public. Argentina also gained

wide support from other Latin American nations, although the Reagan administration, which had developed a conciliatory policy toward the regime, backed Great Britain in the conflict. Though Galtieri achieved his goal in the short term, the quick defeat of seventy-five hundred Argentine troops at Port Stanley in June 1982 deepened the regime's crisis. Divisions in the military services now asserted themselves over who had "lost" the Malvinas, with cleavages being drawn between the different services.

Similarly, the nationalist fervor that the regime's propaganda had whipped up among the public turned into disenchantment and then anger, as demonstrators ridiculed a military regime that could not win a war. By July, General Galtieri had been replaced by General Nicolaiades as an interim president, while both the air force and navy withdrew from the governing *junta*. In essence, this left the army in control of the regime. At the end of the month, a retired general from the engineering corps, Reynaldo Bignone, was chosen president by Nicolaiades.

Despite the internal disintegration of the regime and its delegitimation in the eyes of most sectors of society, there were few initiatives from opposition groups. Though demonstrations and strikes increased toward the end of the year, there was little apparent coordination or consensus among the opposition. In December 1982 the first general strike since 1976 was led by the Peronist unions, with little government response. General Bignone's announcement that elections would be held in October 1983, therefore, appeared to be less a response to massive opposition than the last groping act of a regime that had run out of ideas. In any event, the announcement of elections left the parties scrambling for partisan advantage. As the campaign got under way, both the Radicals and Peronists refrained from the mass mobilization tactics characteristic of previous Argentine elections. The decision to refrain from such tactics seemed to be motivated by a recognition that they had proved destabilizing in the past.

As the campaign got under way in early 1983, the Peronists had the advantage of being Argentina's dominant party. Yet in the period before the elections the party had been plagued by factional jockeying, as leaders contended for the mantle of Perón. The old union leadership, led by the conservative populist Herminio Iglesias, developed strong ties to the Church and the army. The party's final presidential candidate, Italo Luder, built up a network of provincial support and finally negotiated the support of the Iglesias faction. More importantly, the regime had begun a dialogue with the Peronists, offering their support in return for a grant of amnesty covering the period of military rule.

This was to prove a political liability that the Radicals fully used to link the Peronists to the military. For their part, the Radicals had chosen the leader of a new reformist faction to be their candidate. Raúl Alfonsín not only used the Peronist dialogue with the military as a campaign issue, but he also pointed to the political power plays in the Peronist party as an example of the type of politics that had led the military to take over in 1976. This was in keeping with a future-oriented campaign that emphasized the value of democracy and the

punishment of the military. As it turned out, the Alfonsín campaign was in step with the public mood and the Radicals handed the Peronists their first ever presidential defeat.

Consolidation

In the period since Alfonsín was inaugurated president of the republic in December 1983, he has moved to reform the economy and purge those responsible for the "dirty war." The *Plan Austral* introduced in June 1985 was an attempt to control runaway inflation and revive a stagnant economy. In addition to a new currency (1 austral = 10 million pesos), wage and price freezes and budget cuts were enacted.

While meeting with early success in lowering inflation, the *Plan Austral* provoked rising labor militancy in the face of a lowering of real wages. In his first three years, Alfonsín confronted six general strikes called by the Peronist labor confederation. This opposition was strengthened by the Peronist sweep of the September 1987 elections, where they captured sixteen of twenty-two governorships.

The most persistent danger to the consolidation of Argentine democracy has remained the military. The prosecution of military officials for human rights violations stands in contrast to other recent transitions where the military has managed to negotiate its immunity from prosecution. Life imprisonment sentences have been imposed on General Jorge Videla and Admiral Emilio Massera for their part in the disappearances of an estimated ten thousand persons. Former Generals Leopoldo Galtieri and Basilio Lama Dozo and Admiral Jorge Anaya, though cleared of charges arising from the "dirty war," were court-martialed and imprisoned for their role in the Malvinas/Falklands war.

The proposed extension of prosecutions to lower-ranking officers led to a series of military rebellions in 1987 and 1988. The rebellions forced the government to back down on prosecutions. Under a new law (*obediencia debida*), officers who held ranks below lieutenant colonel during the regime cannot be prosecuted for their actions. The decline of the economy and the growth of the Peronist Party around Carlos Saul Menem, a charismatic governor of the remote province of La Rioja, led to Menem's victory in the presidential election on May 14, 1989.

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